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*Patriotism, Politics, and the Presidential Election of 1988**

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Recent circumstantial and journalistic evidence suggests that the patriotism issue may have helped George Bush win the 1988 election. Yet there has been little systematic scholarly assessment of the role patriotism plays in U.S. electoral politics. While there is a small empirical literature on patriotic attitudes, researchers have not availed themselves of recent scholarly work that treats patriotism as a historical concept with contested meanings. Within the framework of a historical-conceptual understanding of patriotism, we used *Q*-methodology to collect data on patriotism perspectives from diverse groups of citizens and used the results of these studies to conduct an *R*-methodology survey of a representative sample from the community. Results of the survey show that people who understand patriotism symbolically, emotionally, or instinctively were particularly susceptible to George Bush's rhetorical appeals to patriotism and the flag. Indeed, these appeals had a strong influence on their vote choice, in favor of Bush. Voters who understood patriotism in alternative ways, however, were not induced by the Bush campaign's rhetorical strategy into voting for Bush for president.

I like Bush's attitude. It's the patriotism thing, the flag—you know, the Pledge of Allegiance and all that. I'm not sure he'll be able to do much about the deficit, which worries me a lot, but he's patriotic, so I'm sure that he'll try.

—Citizen during the 1988 presidential election campaign¹

A patriot is one whose ruling passion is the love of his country.

—Samuel Johnson, 1755 Dictionary

Patriotism is the last refuge of a scoundrel.

—Samuel Johnson, post-1755

In the 1988 presidential election, Republican candidate George Bush raised a series of issues which, taken as a whole, served to cast doubt on the patriotic credentials of his Democratic opponent, Michael Dukakis. These issues included accusations that Dukakis was less than fully patriotic because (1) he was a "card-carrying" member of the ACLU; (2) he vetoed a bill designed to require teachers in public schools to lead their students in the pledge of allegiance; and (3) rumors

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¹Quoted by Apple (1988).

persisted that Dukakis's wife had participated in flag burning during the Vietnam era. Bush's insistent emphasis on patriotism issues was illustrated by, among other things, his strategic and well-publicized visit to a flag factory, his regular recital of the pledge of allegiance at campaign rallies, and his dramatic and frequent references to Dukakis's failure to support mandatory pledges in the classroom.² The electoral salience of this issue was heightened because editorial writers, television commentators, political pundits, and writers of campaign literature all devoted considerable attention to Bush's use of the pledge issue and to Dukakis's delayed and ineffective rebuttal.³

The patriotism issue has not disappeared from the national political agenda. During the first year of the Bush presidency, conflict between reverence for the flag and support for freedom of expression surfaced as a salient national issue. In a 1989 exhibit at the Chicago Institute of Arts, the U.S. flag was willfully situated to encourage viewers to walk on it, creating tension between free and open artistic expression and desecration of the flag. Not long after that event evoked ritualistic condemnation from prominent politicians, the U.S. Supreme Court ruled that flag burning was a legitimate exercise of freedom of speech. An immediate national outcry, coupled with calls for amending the Constitution to outlaw flag burning, was led by George Bush.⁴

This selective recital of recent political history suggests that a scholarly assessment of the meaning and political role of patriotism is essential to an understanding of contemporary U.S. politics. The behavior of then-candidate Bush and his advisors suggests they believe that patriotism and related issues play—or at least *can* play—a pivotal role in candidate evaluation and vote choice. The

²It has subsequently become public knowledge that Bush's decision to emphasize patriotism, defense, and the "Willie Horton" issue was shaped by results of systematic focus group research. Scholarly investigations therefore are needed to determine whether, as Bush's research suggested, these "hot button" issues really did have a significant impact on voting behavior in 1988.

³For merely one example, see Haynes Johnson's (1988) editorial in the *Washington Post* that presented Dukakis's case much better than Dukakis did. Johnson noted that "true patriotism has nothing to do with flag-waving and assaults on character. True patriotism means *respect for diversity, tolerance for differing views*, upholding the right to be wrong and to dissent. Most of all, it means a conviction that out of the clash of opposing ideas and beliefs will emerge a common national purpose that inspires citizens to work toward improving their society and leaving it better than they found it" (emphasis added). This view of the meaning of patriotism was apparently adopted by the "Righteous Gentiles" who risked their lives to rescue Jews during World War II. Oliner and Oliner (1988, 159–60) note that "in the view of many rescuers, patriotism appeared to encompass national acceptance of pluralistic and diverse groups in relationships of equality. . . . Hence for more rescuers (than for bystanders), patriotism appeared to connote obligations to Jews as cocitizens."

⁴Patriotism was also an important public issue during the Vietnam War, while Ronald Reagan's call to "make America strong again" was characterized as the "new patriotism" and seemed to play an important role in his continuing popularity. During the 1984 Olympics, flag waving and American chauvinism seemed to be emphasized over an international spirit of sportsmanship. More recently, we have once again witnessed a resurgence of patriotism rhetoric and its mobilization for partisan political purposes—particularly by Republicans—during and after U.S. military involvement in the war with Iraq.

results of a Gallup–*Times-Mirror* postelection voter survey indicates they may be right. Voters were asked whether the pledge issue had been very important to them in the election, and the percentage answering in the affirmative ranged from a low of 29% in the East to a high of 51% in the South.⁵ The behavior of candidates and responses to the survey question suggest that patriotism played a key role in determining the outcome of the 1988 election.

Clearly, then, even if most people's candidate evaluations were influenced strongly by other factors—the “usual suspects”⁶—there *appear* to be a significant number of voters who were cognizant of the pledge and patriotism issue and who were affected by it. However, *demonstrating* that this is so is a more difficult task, which requires a deeper and more sophisticated analysis than presenting the percentages from a few poll questions. Patriotism has, however, been virtually ignored in scholarly treatments of both voting behavior and U.S. elections more generally. Do politicians and their advisors know something that scholars do not? To borrow a phrase, do candidates such as Bush “waltz before a blind audience” (Aldrich, Sullivan, and Borgida 1989) when they emphasize issues such as patriotism, or ought scholars to pay more attention to their status as “hot button” issues?

Recent Research on Patriotism

Previous research on patriotism falls neatly into two research traditions, each of which informs the analysis presented here. One tradition uses statistical data and method to investigate patriotism and to assess the role that patriotic attitudes play within a cluster of related attitude structures. The second research tradition uses historical and philosophical methods, such as textual and conceptual analysis, to assess both the meaning of patriotism and its broader normative and political dimensions.

Typically, social science research in the first tradition adopts the following strategy: (1) create statements that reflect an implicit understanding of patriotism; (2) ask a sample of people to agree or disagree with these statements; (3) factor analyze the correlations to discover which statements measure the “same thing”; (4) interpret the resulting dimensions, naming at least one as “patriotism”; and (5) present results to other social scientists who use the resulting “patriotism scale” in their research. A typical example is a study by Kosterman and Feshbach (1989). They discovered six “factors” of which one measured patriotism and was defined most centrally by statements such as “I love my country” and “I am proud to be an American.” This led them to conclude that “patriotism taps the affective component of one's feelings toward one's country” (1989, 271).

Within the same research tradition, some social scientists have focused their

⁵Reported in the *New York Times*, Sunday, 13 November 1988; 37% of westerners and mid-westerners said the pledge issue had been important to them in the election.

⁶These factors include, of course, partisanship, ideology, candidate images, and issues other than patriotism.

efforts more specifically on the role patriotic values play within broader attitude structures. Hurwitz and Peffley (1990), for example, measured patriotism by asking respondents to agree or disagree with four statements that focused on pride and national chauvinism.⁷ They viewed patriotism as "an unswerving love of country or a chauvinistic view of the superiority of one's nation, [which] . . . implies an inherent preference for American institutions and customs" (1990, 8). Their statistical analysis supported a conclusion that patriotism, as they understood it, functions as one of several core values and predispositions that underlie the general postures of militarism and support for U.S. containment policies. They also discovered a role for patriotism in shaping both images of the Soviet Union and attitudes about more concrete and specific foreign policy issues.⁸

The second research tradition, which we shall consider in more detail shortly, includes recent scholarship by Cunningham (1981), Dietz (1986, 1989), Janowitz (1983), Samuel (1989), and Schaar (1981). We rely heavily on all of these efforts in our own work on patriotism, in order (1) to provide a historical overview of the concept and how its meaning has evolved and changed over time; (2) to suggest that social science research errs by adopting a single conceptualization of patriotism; and (3) to guide our efforts at assessing the electoral impact of patriotism.

What research approach would best establish whether patriotism and related issues played a pivotal role in the 1988 election? One strategy would be to build upon the recent empirical investigations of patriotism. If we were to take our cues from this work, we would adopt or construct a "patriotism scale" similar to that utilized by Kosterman and Feshbach (1989) or Hurwitz and Peffley (1990). If, however, we take seriously the historical and conceptual research on patriotism, we should be wary of such an approach. Even a cursory historical overview of the sort developed below reveals that the meaning of patriotism has at times been hotly contested, and it also suggests that changes in the meaning of patriotism have been affected by the political fortunes of competing groups who have mobilized the term to their purposes. If the current era is characterized by significant disputes over issues of patriotism, then it is very likely that these disputes are informed by different conceptualizations of patriotism. In any event,

⁷The four items were (1) while the American form of government may not be perfect, it is the best form of government yet devised; (2) other countries should try to make their governments as much like ours as possible; (3) many other countries have governments that are just as good as ours (reversed scoring); and (4) would you say that being an American makes you feel extremely proud, very proud, somewhat proud, or not proud at all?

⁸Other recent examples within this tradition are provided by Owen and Dedrick (1989) and Shanks and Miller (1991). Owen and Dedrick (1989) conceptualized patriotism as a "core value" and measured it with a single item, agreement with the statement "my country—right or wrong." They found that agreement with this statement correlated significantly with attitudes about a number of current issues. More recently, Shanks and Miller (1991) relied on a version of the scale presented later, in Appendix A, and related attitudes on this scale to voting behavior in the 1988 national election.

one of our most important roles as scholars is to identify and assess the nature, distribution, and political consequences of these diverse conceptualizations, and the traditional survey approach does not facilitate such conceptual pluralism (Dryzek 1988).

To illustrate the problematic nature of simply building on previous survey investigations of patriotism, consider a scale pretested in 1987 on a national opinion survey. The items are listed in Appendix A. The third, fifth, sixth, and eighth items from that scale were later used in the 1988 National Election Survey (NES), and analyzed by Shanks and Miller (1991). People were asked to respond to a series of items that were then used to rank respondents on an intuitive notion of "degree of patriotism." A cursory glance at the questionnaire shows that these items presuppose patriotism to have a singular meaning, in particular, a series of affective moods driven largely by the symbolic politics of the flag, the pledge, and the United States as an object of emotion.⁹

What is potentially problematic about these questions, and the scale derived from them, is that they classify as "less patriotic" respondents who might approach patriotism as something other than a direct relationship between symbols and emotions. In other words, the labels imposed by the researchers presume the validity of a single understanding of patriotism, while alternative conceptualizations are not incorporated. As our brief historical discussion will show, however, at any given time no one understanding of patriotism is necessarily uniformly adopted by the polity. In our analysis we shall provide a rigorous assessment of the role of patriotism in the 1988 presidential election. We shall assess its importance in conjunction with the "usual suspects" that could confound the apparent electoral role of patriotism. In doing so we shall avoid relying upon a singular definition of patriotism and instead shall investigate the varied meanings patriotism has today, in order to analyze its political impact.

A Research Strategy to Study Patriotism

The strategy we propose builds upon successive layers of inquiry in order to incorporate insights from intensive and qualitatively oriented research into sur-

⁹The same implicit conceptualization of patriotism underlies the items used by Kosterman and Feshbach (1989), Hurwitz and Peffley (1990), and Owen and Dedrick (1989). To be fair, over 40 years ago, the authors of *The Authoritarian Personality* analyzed a subscale of ethnocentrism that they labeled patriotism. Adorno et al. (1950, 107–08) noted that "the term 'patriotism' as used here does not mean 'love of country.' Rather, the present concept involves blind attachment to certain national cultural values, uncritical conformity with the prevailing group ways, and rejection of other nations as outgroups. It might better be termed pseudopatriotism and distinguished from genuine patriotism, in which love of country and attachment to national values is based on critical understanding. The genuine patriot, it would appear, can appreciate the values and ways of other nations, and can be permissive toward much that he cannot personally accept for himself." These authors recognized two different forms of patriotism, including one (which they did not study) that appears to be more enlightened than that assumed by extant "patriotism scales."

vey design and analysis. Our approach entails three components: historical conceptual analysis, *Q*-methodology using a purposive sample, and an *R*-methodology survey using a representative sample. In the first phase of our study, we constructed a historical account of patriotism as a politically contested concept and analyzed the meaning of patriotism as a normative ideal (Cunningham 1981; Dietz 1986, 1989; Schaar 1981; Janowitz 1983). In light of these studies, we turned to contemporary political discourse in the United States and investigated the vocabulary of patriotism in news accounts, editorial opinions, and politicians' statements (Stevenson 1952; Johnson 1988). With this repertoire of historical and empirical evidence, we then proceeded to develop a range of possible conceptualizations or understandings that "patriotism" might meaningfully be used to express. A brief summary of our historical research follows.

Patriotism as a Historical Concept

Providing a full account of the philosophy of language that informs our research on patriotism as a historical concept is a task far beyond the scope of this paper. However, it is important to note that we begin with the understanding that language is not best understood as a "neutral medium" that describes things in the world; nor are concepts reducible to "definitions" that stand apart from the beliefs, attitudes, and intentions of agents in the world. Rather, we understand political concepts such as "patriotism" to be evaluative terms that are constitutive of an agent's belief system and the intentions that follow from it.¹⁰ In addition, since beliefs are partially constitutive of at least some social institutions, such beliefs always involve some understanding or *concept* of the institution in question.¹¹ For example, while the practice of bestowing awards upon deserving recipients known as "patriots" is integral to certain understandings of patriotism, one must clearly hold some view of "patriot" if one is to assent or dissent with the notion that the receivers of these rewards are true patriots. Thus, what makes a patriot a "patriot" may entail that he or she holds an honor bestowed by a recognized authority. In any case, he or she must also be recognized as such and *believed to be* so by a group of citizens. Accordingly, our focus is not on patriotism as it may be defined by social scientists, but on how ordinary citizens articulate the concept, and on the range of beliefs, attitudes or perspectives the terms patriot and patriotism can be used to express (Skinner 1989).

Ordinary citizens possess the concepts they do in large part because of the range of historical and contemporary usages available to them; they cannot and do not stipulate just anything to be the belief or attitude connected with a concept

¹⁰There is an extensive literature in philosophy and social science inquiry on the role that language plays in constituting human institutions and practices. For a succinct discussion of how political concepts help constitute such practices, see MacIntyre (1975), Taylor (1985), and Ball, Farr, and Hanson (1989).

¹¹For an elaboration of this argument, see MacIntyre (1975).

like patriotism. Accordingly, our emphasis on the meaning of patriotism and the attitudes it deputizes does not allow for any sort of statement to count as relevant to the concept in question. Part of the point of our etymological and historical analysis of “patriot vocabulary” is to establish the conceptual and cognitive boundaries within which patriotism can be said to be meaningfully understood. It is difficult, of course, to establish these boundaries with precision, if only because they transform—sometimes gradually, sometimes dramatically—over time. The best a researcher can do is to make a case with the discursive evidence that supports his or her appropriation of the relevant conceptualizations and categories. The rigidity and permeability of the boundaries, and the range permitted for contestation, will vary among concepts; but on pain of total incoherence, no concept worthy of the name will have boundless contestability. Nor will any researcher worthy of the project neglect to articulate at least the general domain within which the concept operates.

Both “patriot” and “patriotism” are complex political concepts with their own histories of contested and diverse usages.¹² “Patriot” came into early modern English in the sixteenth century, borrowed from the French *patriote*. Originally, it referred simply and descriptively to a fellow countryman (hence Lombarde’s reference in 1596 to “our honest patriote Richard Harrys”). By the mid-seventeenth century, however, the term was appropriated for expressly political purposes and not for the last time in connection with disputants in a civil war. The parliamentarian and antiroyalist John Hampden, killed in battle against the Stuart king’s Cavaliers, was memorialized as “that noble patriot of his country, whose losse is infinitely lamented in all places” (Karsten 1978, 23–24).

The site for the emergence of “patriot” as a fully fledged part of Anglo-American political discourse was the radical Whig rhetoric of the 1680s and 1690s, during and following the Glorious Revolution. Two events of significance occurred: first, “patriot” was tied to a particular set of political principles—the defense of liberty and the rights of Englishmen against tyranny; the laws and constitution of England against the king and court; and “revolutionist” as opposed to conservative or Tory sensibilities. Second, the term was linked in Whig rhetoric to a particular kind of political martyrdom. Reviving the memory of Hampden and enshrining the republican Algernon Sydney (beheaded for treason under Charles II), the Whigs deemed the “patriot” to be any citizen who opposed the tyranny of the king, standing ready to fight to the death against royal absolutism.

¹²The historical roots of these terms are found in the (pejorative) Greek term *patriotai*, which referred to barbarians named after their country, as opposed to Greek citizens of distinctive city-states; and to the Roman *patria*, which signified the glorious fatherland. (The ancient Cretans apparently appealed to *matria*; had their culture triumphed over the Hellenes, we might today have an altogether different understanding of loyalty and country.) In any case, the gendered quality of the Anglo-American “patriotism,” as a political term derived from *patria* (fatherland), should not be overlooked.

Soon enough, however, the Tories appropriated patriot rhetoric as well, and the right to the name "patriot" became a contest between two oppositional visions of politics, government, and power. The struggle over discursive control of "patriot" continued into the eighteenth century, reaching something like a climactic moment in 1755, with the Tory Samuel Johnson's attempt to enshrine it by definitional fiat in his famous dictionary. Not only did Johnson determine the patriot to be "one who maintains and defends his country's freedom and rights"; he also noted its use "ironically for a factious disturber of the government"—thus covering for any possible slippage in the Tory rhetoric against "patriot" Whigs. Not surprisingly, the same struggle over linguistic territory attended the word "patriotism," an extension of "patriot" that came on the scene of English politics along with a host of others "-isms" in the eighteenth century. In America the stage was set for a decisive linguistic turn, as patriotism came consensually to mean revolutionary action in defense of liberty and against monarchical rule.

The American colonists drew from the Whig symbolism of patriot martyrs, revived the name of Hampden, and associated patriotism with a to-the-death defiance of tyrant kings and corrupt ministers. John Adams's declaration in 1770 was in keeping with the rhetoric of the day: "If oppression is warranted by law, the Patriot is much more likely to fall victim than the pimp or the pander. Hampdens will stain the scaffold with blood" (Karsten 1978, 48). Soon patriotism stood for opposition to British authority in its entirety: king, Parliament, and even England itself were declared corrupt as the patriots took their stand with political liberty and self-government, and against "loyalist" allegiance to mother country and royal regime. No wonder that, back in Britain, Johnson declared patriotism "the last refuge of a scoundrel," thereby ceding patriot rhetoric to the revolutionary colonists and their compatriots, the Whigs.¹³ By the late nineteenth century, however, a divisive civil war, the dramatic transformation of state power, and the emergence of nationalism significantly transfigured the rhetoric of patriotism in America. As it became increasingly assimilated into the developing vocabulary of state and nation, patriotism lost its conceptual linkage to active self-government, and its critical sting. The rise of the state served to foster what might loosely be called the "secular religion" of nationalism. Indeed, at just this moment in U.S. history, patriotism became virtually synonymous with emotional

¹³Johnson's observation—its original context now long forgotten—nonetheless remains the source of lively political commentary. During the election of 1988, a *New York Times* (11 October) reporter noted the following exchange with Paul Stull, 72, and his younger brother, Alva Lee, of West Virginia: "'I think it was Johnson who said that 'patriotism is the last refuge of a scoundrel,' said the younger Mr. Stull. . . . 'I'm not saying Mr. Bush is a scoundrel. If that's what he wants to do, it doesn't offend or scare me or make me hate him. But when it works into invasion of someone's religious belief, you get to wondering: are they informed of the Constitution themselves?'" The Stulls's reflections were occasioned by their experiences as Jehovah's Witnesses. They had been banished from their public school in the 1940s for refusing, in accordance with their religious beliefs, to salute the U.S. flag. (11 October 1988).

attachment to national symbols. The identifying slogan of the patriot, My country right or wrong, became something akin to an expression of faith. These phenomena continue to present themselves, so it seems, on the stage of contemporary U.S. politics, and in the reduced, unreflective form of anthems, pledges, and salutes.¹⁴

Whether the “nationalization” of patriotism adequately describes the current situation is an empirical question open to investigation. Our historical analysis—coupled with the important role of patriotism in our current national debate—suggests that it is likely that more than one conceptualization of patriotism characterizes political discourse in the United States.¹⁵ It is also an open question as to what sort of a pivotal role (if any) patriotism and appeals to patriotism play in the discourse and in the decisions of U.S. citizens and voters. To investigate these issues more thoroughly, let us turn to the second phase of our project, a *Q*-methodology study of patriotism.

Conceptualizations of Patriotism among Various Publics: Q-Methodology Research

As a result of our historical and conceptual analysis of patriotism, we identified seven broad conceptualizations of patriotism to guide our *Q*-methodology study. These results are summarized in Appendix B. Unlike ordinary *R*-factor analysis, *Q*-factor analysis compares individuals' overall *response profiles*, rather than *variables*. The *Q*-methodology study thus generates factors that identify alternative understandings of patriotism. As Brown (1980) points out, this sorting procedure and factor analysis method allow individuals to express their own subjective points of view. Diverse and often unanticipated perspectives can

¹⁴And most recently, in the Persian Gulf, in the form of missiles named “Patriot.” We will leave this latest, and literal, dehumanization of patriot discourse for future reflection.

¹⁵In a comparative context, the diverse political and hence contested meanings of patriotism are even more evident. In the spring of 1989, an official banner in the plaza of the unknown soldier in Warsaw read, roughly translated, that “the logical outgrowth of patriot is socialism.” Davies (1986, 92–93), however, notes that the dominant use of the term patriotism in Poland since the 1940s has been as a synonym for “Russian stooge.” This, of course, is a dramatic historical change from the nineteenth century use of the term in Poland. A Polish revolutionary, Ola Szezerbinska, claims to have been inspired in 1889 by her grandmother's definition of a Polish patriot as “someone who loves Poland above everything else in the world, and will abandon everything, even life itself, for her Freedom” (Davies 1986, 271).

In the U.S. context, an article by Isabel Wilkerson in the *New York Times*, Thursday, 4 July 1991, reported diverse understandings of patriotism. One citizen, for example, said, “I can absolutely hate the government and love the country. Patriotism is the love of the land, the country, the people. It's our bond with the past and an appreciation of a whole way of life. Patriotism is making the country great from within, not being tough with the rest of the world. That's a crappy, empty chest-thumping kind of patriotism that doesn't help anybody.” Another citizen, on the other hand, expressed the view that flag burning is immoral and that driving a foreign car “is just not right,” adhering more generally to a “love it or leave it” understanding of patriotism.

be identified and retained in the statistical analysis (e.g., Dryzek, Clark, and McKenzie 1989). *Q*-factor analysis also detects statements that particularly distinguish each point of view from the others. As we shall see shortly, this is a crucial feature of our research strategy. As with intensive interviews, *Q*-methodology typically uses fairly small, diverse, and nonrandom groups of subjects (Dryzek, Clark, and McKenzie 1989). In fact, individuals are often selected for intensive study because the researcher expects them to have divergent conceptualizations.

We devised 49 statements to reflect the seven different conceptions of patriotism. Appendix B lists one statement from each analytical conceptualization of patriotism. In the *Q*-method study, 43 people were asked to judge the extent to which each of the 49 statements reflects their own understanding of patriotism and to sort the statements from the "most patriotic" to the "least patriotic" on an 11-point scale. Respondents were selected from groups that, on the basis of their political activities and other identifiable characteristics, were likely to hold divergent perspectives about patriotism.¹⁶ By means of a *Q*-factor analysis, respondents were grouped into shared perspectives about patriotism. If in fact patriotism does mean something quite different to different types of people, several factors, or perspectives, will emerge. The greater the number of factors, the less consensus there is about the meaning of patriotism.

The *Q*-factor analysis identified five quite different, and occasionally antithetical, perspectives about the meaning of patriotism: we label these perspectives iconoclastic, symbolic, instinctive environmental, capitalistic, and nationalistic symbolic patriotism. Table 1 contains the statements that distinguish each perspective from the others, as well as the consensual statements.¹⁷ Responses to each statement varied from +5 to -5, and the typical, or average, response given by people who adopted each of the five perspectives are presented for the 11 distinguishing statements and the three consensus statements.

Citizens' perspectives on patriotism. The first perspective on patriotism—which we call "iconoclastic patriotism"—is distinguished by a rejection of purely symbolic and emotional appeals. The first five statements in Table 1

¹⁶Samples of students were included from the University of Minnesota, including members of a left-wing group called the Progressive Student Organization, ROTC students, members of the Minnesota Public Interest Research Group, a right-wing group called Students for Freedom and Democracy, and ordinary, nonactivist students. Samples from the community included members of the Veterans of Foreign Wars, activists in the Unitarian-Universalist Church, and members of a local labor union. This ensured diversity of ideological views, social background, and political activity. If we discover significant diversity in perspectives about patriotism, then we know that additional respondents can only add to that diversity.

¹⁷Distinguishing statements were selected by the *Q*-factor analysis program (QUANAL) if the ranking of the statement by one type was at least one standard deviation away from the average of all other types. The number of perspectives, or factors, was determined by the conventional eigenvalue > 1.0 criterion.

Table 1. Unique and Consensual Items for Each Patriotism Perspective

	Type 1	Type 2	Type 3	Type 4	Type 5 ^a
<i>Unique items:</i>					
1. Wearing the uniform of the United States is a great privilege. To serve in the armed forces is the ultimate expression of loyalty to our country.	-3 ^b	+2	+2	+3	+4
2. When I see Old Glory flying on the Fourth of July, or watch our veterans march in the Memorial Day parades, or sing the Star-Spangled Banner with thousands of other Americans, I know the true meaning of patriotism.	-3	+4	+4	+2	+2
3. No one can convince me that Ollie North and the rest of the Contragate crew are true patriots. They may think that what they did was good for the country, but they just trampled all over the law and the Constitution.	+3	-3	-1	-1	-2
4. America has failed to fulfill its promise to its citizens. The poor and the underprivileged are not treated equally with the rest of us. Good citizens must therefore work to change the economic and political systems in order to provide the benefits of our wealth to more of our citizens.	+2	0	-5	-5	-5
5. It is important not to accept all government decisions as valid. Some are unjust and should be protested or met with civil disobedience. If unjust decisions become the rule, then the government and its officials should be toppled.	+3	-2	+3	-4	-4
6. The way I feel about my country has little or nothing to do with complicated ideas. It's very close, deeply emotional, and nearly instinctive—like how a parent feels about an infant or how that child feels about that parent.	-1	+3	+2	0	-2
7. Those who exploit our natural resources for profit do not act in the true spirit of this country. They are destroying our most precious heritage, and it is not too extreme to call them traitors.	+1	-1	+4	-3	0
8. Our political leaders have not worked hard enough to achieve peace and human rights in the world. All Americans must put pressure on them to work harder toward peace and human rights, and					

Table 1 (continued)

	Type 1	Type 2	Type 3	Type 4	Type 5 ^a
<i>Unique items:</i>					
people who do nothing about it are not good citizens.	+ 1	- 1	+ 3	- 2	- 2
9. In my mind, the giants of American industry, such as John D. Rockefeller, Henry Ford, and Andrew Carnegie were patriots as great as Washington, Jefferson, and Lincoln.	- 3	- 4	- 4	+ 2	- 3
10. It is just fine to talk about protecting our environment, but as good Americans we must take a broader view. In order to have enough economic development and jobs for our people, we must be willing to accept some damage to our environment.	- 2	- 3	- 1	+ 3	- 3
11. Whenever there are strong differences of opinion between the United States and the Soviet Union, we are always right and they are always wrong. We almost seem destined to be favored by God to be on the right side.	- 5	- 5	- 5	- 5	0
<i>Consensual items:</i>					
12. In America, disagreement with the policies of the government is not evidence of lack of patriotism. Indeed, it's the very fact that Americans can openly criticize their government, openly and without fear of reprisal, that is the essence of our freedom and that will keep us free.	+ 5	+ 5	+ 3	+ 5	+ 3
13. The true patriot is the person who tries to make the government do what is right and live up to its ideals, by contacting government officials, working in political campaigns, or voting.	+ 4	+ 5	+ 5	+ 5	+ 4
14. The greatness of our country depends on a sense of community and a spirit of cooperation and toleration, which can be developed by active participation by all citizens.	+ 5	+ 5	+ 5	+ 4	+ 5

^aThe descriptive labels developed for the five types of perspectives are, respectively, iconoclastic; symbolic; instinctive environmental; capitalistic; and nationalistic symbolic patriotism.

^bThe scores that are in italic distinguish the type in question from the other perspectives. Statement 1, for example, significantly distinguishes the iconoclastic patriots (type 1) from all of the other types. Statement 5 significantly distinguishes types 1 and 3 from the others.

elicited a unique response pattern from people who loaded most heavily on the first *Q*-factor. As the first two items in the table indicate, this perspective does not associate patriotism with wearing the military uniform, flying the flag, or celebrating the Fourth of July. From this particular point of view, for example, Oliver North is not a patriot. Iconoclastic patriotism also incorporates a neutral view of the relationship between patriotism and the following item: "Symbols such as flags, national songs, nationalistic statuary, and so on can be very dangerous. They can be used to arouse people emotionally and to get them to do irrational things in order to demonstrate their love of country." All of the other perspectives characterized this statement as "least patriotic." In addition, iconoclastic patriotism is the only perspective that embraces the belief that citizens working for economic justice provide a good example of patriotism (item 4 in Table 1). When seen in conjunction with item 5 in Table 1, this suggests that from the iconoclastic perspective, unconventional political action can be patriotic. Patriots who love their country must work toward economic and political change and must be engaged in a broad range of civic and political activities. Thus, this understanding rejects the appeal of political symbols and nationalistic images and focuses instead upon critical, active engagement in political life.

The second perspective, which we call "symbolic patriotism," is distinguished by a strong, emotional view of country (statement 6), positive resonance toward traditional patriotic symbols (statements 1 and 2), and rejection of the idea that civil disobedience is patriotic (statement 5). In many important respects, symbolic patriotism is at odds with iconoclastic patriotism. The former is heavily influenced by appeals to rituals and slogans and by an emotional, uncritical acceptance of the United States. Symbolic patriotism accepts the idea that the flag, the Fourth, and veterans' parades characterize patriotism, and it strongly rejects (-5) the claim that symbols can be very dangerous (data not shown).

The third perspective, which we call "instinctive environmental patriotism," is distinguished from the others primarily by a tendency to see people who despoil the environment for profit as traitors (statement 7). From this point of view, a true patriot would use the language of patriotism to shape the community's image of profiteers and would rely upon social pressure to shame them. It firmly accepts as patriotic the view that "prosperity should not be purchased by poisoning the air, the rivers, and the natural resources that are the greatest gift of this country" ($+4$, data not shown). Instinctive environmental patriotism is also the *only* conceptualization that links patriotism to love of the Midwest and the plains as a physical, ecological niche (data not shown). From this perspective, then, patriotism has an important element of love and loyalty to the *land* and to its preservation for future generations of Americans.¹⁸

¹⁸Ecological patriotism may be illustrated by a recent "guest viewpoint" published in the *Syracuse Press and Sun-Bulletin*. The author, Jay Hair, argues that there is a "new patriotism" afoot

Although there is common ground between instinctive environmental patriotism and iconoclastic patriotism, the former incorporates a positive view of the patriotic value of traditional symbols, including the uniform of the armed forces. Thus, although it shares certain participatory values with iconoclastic patriotism, the third understanding does not reject symbolism or emotional appeals to love of country. Nor is this view a simple replication of symbolic patriotism, insofar as it situates patriotism within a framework of ecological values and governmental responsibility and endorses protest and civil disobedience against government activities that are deemed unfair or unjust.

The fourth perspective—capitalistic patriotism—believes that patriotism is characterized as much by economic as by political heroes (statement 9). Table 1 also demonstrates that it is the only conceptualization that accepts environmental damage in return for jobs as patriotic (statement 10), and it rejects the view that profiteers are traitors (statement 7). In capitalistic patriotism, economic growth blends with love of country, and the conquest of nature and development of natural resources seem to be viewed as viable expressions of patriotic devotion. In this sense it is antithetical to instinctive environmentalism because it views people who attempt to protect the environment at the expense of development as nonpatriotic if not unpatriotic. Those who develop our natural resources make our country great and show their love for it by presenting the next generation with a more productive nation and land.

The fifth and final conceptualization of patriotism differs from the others by a refusal to reject the view that, in our struggle with the Soviet Union, we are always right and God is even on our side (statement 11). The other conceptualizations strongly characterize this statement as "least patriotic." This particular perspective—nationalistic symbolic patriotism—incorporates positive views of the symbols of patriotism (statements 1 and 2) and does not see challenges to governmental authority as patriotic (statements 4 and 5). It is the only perspective to see patriotism as being "taught to respect and care for the country just like the way (we're) taught that it's not right to steal" (+5, not shown). Nationalistic symbolic patriotism alone strongly rejects the view that, "Americans (should) think of themselves as citizens of the world first and citizens of the U.S. only secondarily" (-5, not shown), and it assesses the following statement as relatively unpatriotic: "the U.S. has made its share of mistakes [and] our mistakes have had disastrous consequences" (-4, not shown). Unlike symbolic

that defines our national security as environmental security. He claims that "those who advance these ideas, like patriots of the past, must overcome barriers or resistance. Like our founding fathers, the new patriots act for the sake of liberty. We will leave a legacy of liberty if we preserve an environment that allows future generations to make choices that are equitable, just and provide the freedom to enjoy the natural bounties of our earth." An accompanying editorial by the newspaper quotes Hair as saying, "At the hour capitalism appears triumphant, the new patriotism calls us to re-examine our basic economic assumptions" (4 July 1990).

patriotism, “*nationalistic* symbolic patriotism” is more committed to the status quo and places the United States at the top of God’s current order.

Although these findings demonstrate that the meaning of patriotism is contested today, our results also show agreement on several core principles. In particular, respondents agreed upon three particular statements as patriotic.¹⁹ What may seem surprising, or even counterintuitive, is that the sentiments expressed in these statements are quite unlike the view of patriotism found in empirical social science studies. Rather than conceptualizing patriotism in highly emotional, jingoistic, or uncritical terms, this shared view of patriotism emphasizes both participation in politics and criticism of the government to make it live up to its ideals. All five types agree that statement 12 reflects patriotism. They all hold that disagreement with government policies is not unpatriotic; instead our ability to disagree preserves and demonstrates our freedoms. Statement 13 asserts that true patriots try to make the government do what is right by lobbying, engaging in campaign activities, and voting. A third item, 14, states that our country’s greatness depends on cooperation and tolerance, which are developed by active participation.

The themes of these consensus items show that the way previous researchers measured patriotism neglected an important and central dimension of the concept. However, we do not contend that these items should replace others as a single and accurate measure of patriotism because the concept is clearly contested. To adopt a single conceptualization as true patriotism misrepresents a political discourse that is, in part, a debate about the concept’s meaning. Although all five conceptualizations hold that these three statements reflect patriotism, each conceptualization also entails a range of quite different attitudes and beliefs about what patriotism means.

In addition, the consensus statements are general expressions of beliefs that encourage individuals who might otherwise see things differently to converge in their reactions to these statements.²⁰ In the case of statement 12, it is not clear that all sorts of criticisms or all means of expressing disagreement would be patriotic. For statement 14, we might ask, What goals should patriots cooperate to attain and how far does the tolerant citizen go before becoming unpatriotic? Since statement 13 focuses on noncontroversial political activities, it is not clear whether other actions would be patriotic or even acceptable. What then does this shared critical dimension of patriotism mean for these different types?

The context provided by other statements allows us to understand how these

¹⁹These statements were picked as “consensus items” by the QUANAL program. The criterion used was that the Z-score of the ranking for all types be within one standard deviation.

²⁰The case of patriotism, thus, may be similar to tolerance. Studies have consistently shown high levels of support for general principles of tolerance. However, a more difficult test is provided when individuals are asked about their tolerance toward specific groups. When those groups are strongly disliked by respondents, tolerance is rather limited (Sullivan, Piereson, and Marcus 1982).

general principles are or might be applied under specific circumstances. Let us examine the question of whether different ways of expressing criticism would be considered to be patriotic. In fact, patriotism types differ in terms of the limits they place on forms of critical action. In the case of statement 5, only types 1 (iconoclastic patriotism) and 3 (instinctive environmental patriotism) believe that engaging in civil disobedience or toppling an unjust government is patriotic. What about flag burning as a constitutionally protected act of political expression? Several statements suggest that only iconoclastic patriotism would support the Supreme Court's decision upholding such acts of political expression. The iconoclasts were the only type to give statement 2 a negative rating, thus rejecting the belief that patriotism requires an emotional connection to the flag, the national anthem, and veterans' parades. Another statement holds that nationalistic symbols, including the flag, can be dangerous. Iconoclasts ranked this at zero, while all other types saw it as much less patriotic.

Before closing this discussion, it is important to anticipate and respond to the charge that the categories developed in Appendix B have structured the task presented to the respondents. While some linguistic and conceptual structuring is inevitable, it is critical to recall that we have relied on meanings that have historical or contemporary grounding in ordinary discourse. Thus, our measurement procedures do not allow patriotism to mean literally anything a respondent says it does. Our measurement does not invite "private languages" but rather imposes the condition that meanings be shared by at least some subcommunity if not the broader political community.²¹ In addition, our subjects' answers do not merely inform us of their fit to prevailing scholarly views, but educate us about how ordinary people actually think about patriotism.

Table 2 illustrates these points. It presents mean scores—for each of the five views of patriotism expressed by the *Q*-methodology respondents—on the seven historical and theoretical conceptions of patriotism listed in Appendix B, and an additional conception based on the three most purely symbolic statements.²² In each case the mean scores are based on the three items that most centrally define each of these analytical-historical types of patriotism. The results show that each empirical perspective combines elements of the analytical types that were identified before the study was conducted.

The differences among the empirical types of patriotism tend to validate the interpretations we offered earlier. Iconoclastic patriotism is the only one consistently to reject the attitudes involved in either instinctive or symbolic patriotism. The other four perspectives responded positively to these statements, particularly the purely symbolic items, which deal with the Fourth of July, the flag, the

²¹ In addition, our use of *Q*-factor analysis ensures that purely idiosyncratic conceptualizations of patriotism, although they undoubtedly exist, are not recognized. Only shared perspectives emerge.

²² The scores assigned to each statement by individuals ranges from +5 to -5, and the means for each type's conceptualization of patriotism are presented in the table.

Table 2. Mean Scores on the Analytic-Historical Meanings of Patriotism by Five Types of Patriotism

	<i>Empirical Types of Patriotism</i>				
	Icono- clastic	Symbolic	Instinc- tive Environ- mental	Capital- istic	National- istic Symbolic
<i>Analytical types:</i> ^a					
Instinctive	– 2.3 ^b	1.3	2.0	1.0	0.7
Ecological	1.7	1.7	3.0	– 1.0	1.3
American					
exceptionalism	– 2.7	1.7	– 2.0	0.0	2.0
Institutional	3.3	1.3	– 1.0	2.0	1.3
Democratic	4.3	4.7	3.0	4.0	3.7
Capitalist	– 1.7	– 0.3	1.3	2.7	1.7
Antinationalist	1.7	0.7	– 0.3	1.0	– 2.3
“Purely symbolic” ^c	– 2.0	3.7	3.0	2.0	3.3

^aThe three statements that are the “purest” examples of each a priori analytical types of patriotism were selected for comparison here, including all of those listed in Appendix B.

^bThe largest positive and negative scores within each analytical type are in italic for contrast.

^cThree statements with primarily symbolic content—one on the military uniform, one on flags, songs, and statuary, and one on Old Glory and the Fourth of July—were used in these comparisons to distinguish instinctive from purely symbolic patriotism.

military uniform of our country, and other such symbols. Those who hold the iconoclastic perspective also strongly reject American exceptionalism and capitalist economics, while they endorse antinationalistic views of patriotism. Although all five types strongly endorse democratic patriotism, iconoclastic patriotism is particularly inclined to endorse institutional conceptions of patriotism. It replaces love of flag, country, and spectacle with a loyalty to and faith in institutions and procedures. Iconoclastic patriotism is the most unique and distinctive conceptualization, with the most extreme positive or negative score on six of the eight analytical categories.

Table 2 confirms our earlier speculation that symbolic patriots evaluate patriotism in terms that are almost opposite to the views of iconoclastic patriots, with the exception that both strongly endorse democratic notions of patriotism. Table 2 also confirms that an instinctive ecological view of patriotism is distinguished from iconoclastic patriotism by a more emotional brand of patriotism, including both instinctive and symbolic items. Instinctive and symbolic love of country are largely in the service of ecological—hence patriotic—goals. Patrio-

tism is partially instrumental, a means to instill love of the *land* and to ensure its preservation for future generations.²³ The traitors are those who would destroy this legacy for the sake of short-term gain.

The capitalistic patriotic view is distinctive in two respects. It exhibits the strongest level of support for patriotism as belief in capitalistic ideas²⁴ and economic development, and it is the only view to reject outright all notions of ecological patriotism. And finally, the nationalistic symbolic view of patriotism sees patriotism as embracing notions of American exceptionalism, strongly rejecting ideas that could be construed as antinationalistic. On the whole, then, these results reinforce the conclusions drawn from the analysis of distinguishing statements and demonstrate how, even though we have structured the *Q*-sort task to some degree, respondents combined the raw materials we provided to express five distinctive—and not predetermined—conceptualizations of patriotism.

Although *Q*-methodology studies sacrifice randomness and sample size to maximize diversity of perspective, Brown (1980, 192) argues that the small number of subjects is not problematic because “all that is required are enough subjects to establish the existence of a factor for the purposes of comparing one factor with another.” However, inferences about how these perspectives are distributed in the broader community cannot be made, nor can one generalize about the demographic or political differences that exist among people who adopt different perspectives. Thus, *Q*-methodology does not allow scholars to generalize about the relationship between individuals’ subjective conceptualizations and their other political attitudes and behaviors, nor does it address questions about the structure of political life. In the current instance, the distribution in the community of perspectives on patriotism makes a tremendous difference (e.g., for electoral politics or for the conduct of our foreign policy). How then can the analyst incorporate subjective conceptualizations yet maintain an ability to generalize and assess the broader implications of these diverse conceptualizations of patriotism? We address this question with a survey of the community.

Patriotic Perspectives in the Broader Community: The R-Methodology Survey Approach

The third and final phase of this research project attempts to solve the aforementioned problem by means of a public opinion survey that builds directly on the *Q*-methodology findings. In the final phase, a questionnaire was designed to ask people to respond to the statements that best distinguished the respective

²³George Orwell (1971, 362) defined patriotism in part as “devotion to a particular *place* and a particular way of life, which one believes to be the best in the world but has no wish to force upon other people” (emphasis added).

²⁴Many advertisers play on patriotism as capitalism, mixing messages about flag and country with pitches for automobiles, beer, and even cigarettes. They assume that, for some potential customers, patriotism and marketplace are emotionally intertwined.

patriotism perspectives elicited from the *Q*-analysis. While the final step of this strategy cannot retain all the complexity and nuance available from the historical-conceptual study and the subjectivist *Q*-methodology study, it does nudge survey methodology in this direction. Reactions of a representative sample of survey respondents to such distinguishing statements allow scholars to broaden their analysis of varying conceptualizations of patriotism, to identify which of the various patriotisms identified in the *Q*-methodology study best characterizes each respondent in the representative sample, and to generalize these findings to the broader community of citizens.

We administered the statements that distinguish each view of patriotism from the others (Table 1) to a random sample of about 400 adults from Minneapolis and St. Paul.²⁵ We assigned survey respondents to a particular perspective on patriotism based on the match between their response profile and each of the five perspectives. Respondents were assigned to a perspective if their answers to the items in Table 1 matched the unique response profiles of that perspective on patriotism.²⁶ About 16% of the random sample were classified as iconoclastic patriots, 38% as symbolic patriots, 31% as instinctive environmental patriots, 16% as capitalistic patriots, and only one respondent as a nationalistic symbolic

²⁵The data were collected for the authors by the Minnesota Center for Survey Research (MCSR). Interviews were conducted by telephone during May and June, 1988. The response rate was 73% with a resulting margin of error of approximately 5% at the 95% confidence level.

²⁶If respondents agreed with four of the five unique responses for iconoclastic patriotism (statements 1–5 in Table 1), they were assigned to that perspective. They had to agree with symbolic patriotism on items 5 and 6; with instinctive environmental patriotism on items 5, 7, and 8; with capitalistic patriotism on three of four items (statements 5, 7, 9, and 10); and with nationalistic symbolic patriotism on items 5 and 11. Item 5 was used as distinguishing item for all four types, since they clustered neatly into three quite separate groups. Since some respondents failed to fit any type by these criteria, and some fit more than one type, we developed average deviation scores for each respondent on each perspective. (Only 6% of respondents did not fit a type initially.) These scores reflected the average deviation score per item on each type for each respondent. Later in the analysis, we use these deviation scores to correlate typical thinking patterns with other variables (Table 4).

Q-method respondents evaluated statements twice, assessing both their understanding of patriotism and also sorting the statements by their degree of agreement or disagreement. They were able to distinguish, to a significant degree, between each statement's relationship to the meaning of patriotism, and how much they agreed with it. In our pretest of the *R*-methodology survey, we discovered that most respondents from the broader community did not make this distinction sharply enough. Their affective and cognitive evaluations of potentially patriotic statements were so intertwined that, for most of them, agreement reflected their view that a statement was patriotic. This bolsters the argument that patriotism is a political and contested concept. Many people probably determine their understanding of patriotism based on their attitudes. An alternative explanation is that the *Q*-method study was conducted in person, with an interviewer to explain the nature of the tasks, and the measurement process is one that is more involving for respondents, helping them make distinctions all the way through the task. In contrast, the *R*-methodology study was a telephone survey, making it more difficult to explain the difference between how patriotic a statement was and whether a respondent agreed with it or not.

patriot.²⁷ As a result, the latter was dropped from the analysis. The remainder of the survey included items designed (1) to validate the strategy for assigning respondents to patriotism perspectives; (2) to compare results obtained using this methodological approach with those obtained by relying on a more traditional patriotism scale; (3) to explore the extent to which varying reactions to current political issues such as defense spending, the Iran-Contra affair, the proper role of government, and attitudes toward communism have their roots in differing views about patriotism; and (4) to assess the political consequences—particularly in the 1988 election—of the diversity of patriotism perspectives.

An attempt to validate "patriotisms." In an effort to assess the validity of this approach to the study of patriotism, we examined behavioral differences among people who seemed to adopt varied perspectives, and we also explored the relationships among other, related attitudes and measures of different perspectives on patriotism.²⁸

First, the results in Table 3 show that iconoclastic patriots are significantly more participatory than others. They participate more in the traditional modes of campaign and community activities and communicate more with elected representatives. They are also more likely to engage in unconventional political participation such as protest activities. It is clear, then, that iconoclastic patriots not only believe in active, critical citizenship but also are more likely to engage in it. This activist approach to politics complements their rejection of more emotional and symbolic views of patriotism. Those who adopt the other three per-

²⁷These percentages would change in a national sample. Minnesota is unique politically in ways relevant to a discussion of patriotism, and we expect that significant percentages of people in other regions of the country adopt the nationalistic symbolic perspective. As we noted earlier, the *Times-Mirror* postelection survey of 1988 discovered that while 51% of southerners reported that the pledge of allegiance issue was important to them, only 37% of westerners and midwesterners, and 29% of easterners, did so. That might translate into a significant percentage of nationalistic symbolic patriots in the South. The point here is not that the Minnesota data are representative, but that this research strategy can be used successfully in surveys to obtain important insights.

²⁸In addition to the findings reported here, the people who adopt alternative patriotism perspectives also have very different demographic characteristics. To ensure that these patriotism perspectives were not merely surrogates for political ideology, we examined the results of a discriminant function analysis designed to predict whether respondents adopted a liberal view of patriotism (types 1 or 3) or a conservative view of patriotism (types 2 or 4). If responses to the patriotism items were simply measures of political ideology, and not patriotism, we would expect ideology to be a strong and significant predictor of liberal versus conservative types of patriotism. In fact, we were able to predict accurately 68% of the liberal patriots and 64% of the more conservative patriots from the *R*-methodology study using a discriminant function analysis including demographic and political background variables. The coefficient for ideology was not statistically significant. We later show that measures of patriotism perspectives have an impact on vote choice above and beyond that of measures of party identification, candidate images, political ideology, and position on domestic and defense issues. Although ideology informs people's views of patriotism, the latter is not merely a surrogate for the former.

Table 3. Validation of Patriotism Perspectives

	Iconoclastic (<i>N</i> = 62)	Symbolic (<i>N</i> = 151)	Instinctive Environmental (<i>N</i> = 122)	Capitalistic (<i>N</i> = 62)
Fly flag, go to parades regularly	7% ^a	25%	24%	28%
1984 % of two-party vote				
% Reagan	37% ^a	50%	34% ^a	59%
% Mondale	63%	50%	66%	41%
1988 May–June vote intention				
% Bush	29%	31%	26%	49% ^a
% Dukakis	71%	68%	74%	51%
1988 Vote	(<i>N</i> = 38)	(<i>N</i> = 74)	(<i>N</i> = 72)	(<i>N</i> = 33)
% Bush	32%	46%	43%	42%
% Dukakis	66%	54%	56%	58%
Mean party identification (7-point item)	4.7	4.4	4.6	3.7 ^a
Ideology (7-point item)	4.7 ^a	3.8	3.9	3.6
Mean conventional participation ^b (Scores, 6–18)	10.1 ^a	8.8	9.2	8.8
Mean unconventional participation ^b (Scores, 2–6)	2.5 ^a	2.1	2.2	2.0

^aThese percentages and mean scores are significantly different from the others based on post hoc contrasts using Scheffe's procedure.

^bConventional participation was measured by frequency (a 3-point scale for each item) with which respondents had worked to solve community problems, worked for a party or candidate, contacted officials about an issue, engaged in political discussion, given money to a party or candidate, and joined a political or interest group. The reliability (coefficient alpha) for the conventional participation scale is .79. Unconventional participation was measured by frequency of joining public demonstrations or engaging in civil disobedience. Its reliability is .54.

spectives do not differ significantly in their levels of participation, although the instinctive environmental patriots are somewhat higher on both measures of political participation. To some extent these data provide validation of the patriotism perspectives, since the *Q*-methodology study suggested that critical, participatory citizenship played a greater role in the iconoclastic and instinctive environmental conceptualizations.

Second, only 7% of the iconoclastic patriots report that they regularly fly

the flag on the Fourth of July or attend parades. More than a fourth of respondents who adopt the other perspectives do so. Furthermore, people who accept the iconoclastic or the instinctive environmental perspective voted overwhelmingly for Mondale, while those who accepted a symbolic or capitalistic perspective split their vote or voted for Reagan.²⁹

This survey was conducted in May and June, 1988. At that time all four groups supported Dukakis more strongly than they had Mondale. For two reasons the campaign events later that summer provided a unique opportunity to assess the predictive validity of these patriotism perspectives. The first is that Dukakis experienced a precipitous drop in support between the May survey and the November election. The second is that Bush raised the patriotism issue in the campaign in a way that should have appealed to two of the groups, the symbolic and the instinctive environmental patriots, but not the other two groups, the iconoclasts or the capitalists. As a result, if Bush's use of the patriotism issue played an important role in Dukakis's decline, then the former two groups should have increased their support of Bush more than the latter two did.

If Bush's symbolic use of the patriotism issue had little or no effect on voters, but partisanship and other issues did, how would we expect the four groups to respond? Symbolic patriots were more favorably inclined toward the Republican party³⁰ than iconoclastic or instinctive environmental patriots, and in 1984, in spite of the attraction provided by Minnesota's favorite son, Walter Mondale, they split their presidential vote evenly. Their support for Bush therefore should have increased as the campaign progressed, regardless of the patriotism issue. The instinctive environmental patriots, however, tended to be more Democratic than the symbolic patriots, and in 1984 they supported Mondale overwhelmingly. Thus, although the patriotism issue might have increased their support for Bush, other issues, and partisanship, would not. Almost two-thirds of the iconoclasts supported Mondale in 1984, and they tended to be more liberal and Democratic than the symbolic or capitalistic patriots. They should not have increased their support for Bush due to either patriotism or other campaign issues. Finally, the capitalistic patriots were—overwhelmingly—Reagan supporters. They tended to be more conservative than the other groups and exhibited the strongest level of support for Bush in the May survey. As a result, although we

²⁹Recall that we are now dealing with a representative sample from the larger community, not the *Q*-methodology sample described earlier. This analysis demonstrates that, even without having the larger probability sample do a *Q*-sort, it is possible to identify their perspectives on patriotism by simply asking them to respond to the distinguishing statements listed in Table 1. The results in Table 3 validate this research strategy and show important behavioral differences among people from the *R*-methodology study who are "typed" in this way. We already knew about differences such as this among the samples used for the *Q*-methodology study. They were, in fact, selected because of such differences.

³⁰Data not shown.

do not expect that the patriotism issue would lead them to increase their support for Bush, partisanship and other campaign issues should have done so.³¹

To test these expectations, after the election as many of the original respondents as possible (70%) were reinterviewed by MCSR. About 12% of them did not vote, and some respondents failed to provide their vote choice, leaving a total of 217 respondents who had indicated adherence to a particular perspective on patriotism in May or June, and who later told us how they voted in November.

Although Dukakis carried Minnesota, his decline in Minnesota polls mirrored the national trend. The campaign in Minnesota started with an overwhelming Dukakis lead and ended with a narrow Dukakis victory. The data in Table 3 confirm that, although Bush increased his support significantly, his gain among iconoclastic patriots was only 3%, and he actually lost 7% among the capitalistic patriots, counter to the general trend. By contrast, Bush gained 15% among the symbolic patriots and fully 17% among the instinctive environmental patriots. His emphasis on Massachusetts Harbor may have enhanced his appeal among the latter group, who are particularly interested in ecology and the environment, but the pattern of results suggests that the two groups of symbolic patriots responded most favorably to his campaign appeal. The patriotism issue may have played an important role in effecting this change in candidate support. If Bush's advances had simply been due to a reactivation of partisanship, a return to the Republican ticket among Reagan Democrats, or other campaign issues, the largest increases in support for Bush would have been among the symbolic and capitalistic patriots, not the instinctive environmental patriots. In fact, the capitalistic patriots voted for Dukakis almost 60%–40%, even though they had supported Reagan almost 60%–40% over favorite son Mondale. No doubt Dukakis's image as a jobs and economic development governor enhanced his appeal among these people, but since Bush's appeal to the flag and pledge issues emphasized a conception of patriotism that they did not share, the patriotism issue could not offset Dukakis's advantage on economic issues.³²

Additional evidence that supports the validity of the patriotism perspectives discovered in the *Q*-methodology study and used in the *R*-methodology study is suggested by comparing the results of this approach with those obtained by relying on a more traditional patriotism scale constructed from the items in Appen-

³¹ If patriotism had been framed differently in the election campaign, our expectations about responses would not be the same. For example, if a candidate linked patriotic action to preserving the environment, and called polluters unpatriotic, we would have expected strong reactions from types 3 and 4. We would have hypothesized that type 3 would rally to this candidate's side; type 4 would turn away; and types 1 and 2 would have been relatively unaffected. Until the war with Iraq began, it seemed possible that this scenario could occur during the 1992 presidential election, but a repeat of 1988 now seems more likely.

³² In fact, during the election Dukakis appealed to what he called "economic patriotism," a term that may have had some appeal to the capitalistic patriots even if it fell on deaf ears among the other three groups.

dix A. To assess this, and to relate the patriotism perspectives to other variables, we created an interval-level measure of the extent to which each respondent's profile deviated from each of the four perspectives on patriotism.³³

As the data in the first row in Table 4 indicate, the traditional patriotism scale correlates strongly—and negatively—with the iconoclastic patriotism perspective and positively with the symbolic patriotism perspective. This result shows that if researchers were to rely solely on this more emotional and symbolic conceptualization of patriotism and its concomitant measures, they would conclude that symbolic and capitalistic patriots are truly “patriotic,” while the iconoclastic patriots are at best “less patriotic” and perhaps even “un-American.”³⁴ This conclusion would be a mistake.

To the extent that views about communism, defense spending and policies, and related issues such as the Iran-Contra affair play a central role in the implicit conception of patriotism that underlies the traditional patriotism scale, views on these topics should be positively related to the symbolic patriotism perspective but negatively related to the iconoclastic patriotism perspective. The conceptions of instinctive environmental patriotism and capitalistic patriotism do not, in theory, relate directly to attitudes toward communism, defense spending, or Iran-Contra.

Table 4 presents the correlations between perspectives on patriotism and measures of anticommunism, attitudes toward national defense issues, and the Iran-Contra affair. These scales correlate strongly negatively with iconoclastic patriotism. People who agree with what we have called iconoclastic patriotism would find the conservative views on these issues to be inconsistent with their views on patriotism. To them, love of country is definitely not synonymous with anticommunism, support for a strong foreign policy, or support for Oliver North and the Reagan administration's handling of the Iran-Contra “arms for hostages”

³³It is important to note that in analyzing patriotism perspectives in the survey data, we need not assume that each respondent has fully adopted and incorporated one of these four conceptualizations of patriotism. It is sufficient for us to assume that, even if every individual has a personal and unique conception of patriotism, most individuals' perspectives nevertheless share a great deal with at least one of the common perspectives identified in the *Q*-methodology study. The deviation scores represent how close each individual's perspective is to the common, ideal types described in the text. They were computed by taking the average squared difference between each individual's score and the ideal type's score on each defining item for each type (Table 1). We further assume that the closer one's perspective is to a particular shared perspective, the more that person will have in common, politically and demographically, with others who share that viewpoint. The data presented in Tables 3 and 4 are consistent with this assumption.

³⁴Scores on the traditional patriotism scale range from 4 to 16, with lower scores indicating a more emotional patriotic view. The midpoint of the scale is 10. The iconoclastic patriots scored an average of 10.5, toward the traitorous end of the scale, and the symbolic patriots scored a mean of 8.2, on the patriotic end. The other patriots scored 8.4 and 8.5, respectively, closer to the symbolic patriots. The iconoclastic patriots' mean is significantly different from the others, using the Scheffe procedure for post hoc differences among means.

**Table 4. Comparison of Results Using Traditional versus
Typal Deviation Measures of Patriotism
(*N* = 341)**

	Iconoclastic Patriotism	Symbolic Patriotism	Instinctive Environ- mental Patriotism	Capitalistic Patriotism	Traditional Patriotism Scale
<i>Correlations:^a</i>					
Traditional patriotism scale ^b	— .49*	.35*	— .10	.22*	xx
Anticommunism	— .39*	.25*	— .06	.05	.39*
Ollie North and Iran-Contra	—	.24*	— .22*	.22*	.30*
Defense: spending and toughness	— .36*	.22*	— .18	.16	.39*
Environment versus jobs	— .17	.14	— .24*	—	.14
Role of govt.	.29*	— .06	.31*	— .22*	— .22*
Vote in 1984 presidential election	.20*	.03	.27*	— .13	— .12
Intended vote in 1988 pres. election	.19*	.03	.20*	— .15	— .07

^aThe deviation scores for each conceptualization of patriotism were correlated with respondents' scores on measures of various attitudes and behaviors, and then the *signs* of the coefficients were *reversed* (see text).

^bThe reliability (alpha) for the traditional emotional patriotism scale is .73 (see Appendix A for the items); for anticommunism it is .72 (for the items, see Hurwitz and Peffley 1990; Peffley and Hurwitz 1988); for the Ollie North and Iran-Contra scale it is .87 (includes four items, two evaluating Oliver North's status as a hero and as a patriot, and two assessing approval of North's actions and of the Reagan administration); for defense spending it is .49 (includes 5-point items on defense spending, degree of U.S. military involvement in other countries, and whether our government should be strong and tough or understanding and flexible in its foreign relations); and for the role of government, alpha is .56 (includes role of government in providing jobs, programs for the poor, and whether people depend too much on the government for help). The environment versus jobs trade-off is a single item.

*These correlations are significant at the .001 level.

affair.³⁵ On the other hand, those whose attitudes align with what we have called symbolic patriotism find the conservative position on these issues entirely con-

³⁵We have not presented the correlation between the "Ollie North and Iran-Contra" scale and iconoclastic patriotism in Table 4 because one of the defining items for that perspective is about Ollie North, building in a correlation. In fact, the correlation is a strong — .51.

sistent with their patriotism preferences. In fact, the measure of symbolic patriotism is positively correlated with all three issues: anticommunism, Iran-Contra, and defense. Attitudes on these three issues do not, however, correlate very strongly with instinctive environmental or capitalistic notions of patriotism. Some people who adopt these patriotic views are hard-line conservatives; some are not. The only significant correlations are with attitude toward Iran-Contra, with a slight tendency for people with the instinctive environmental perspective to take a dim view of it, while those with the capitalistic perspective are more supportive. The correlations with defense and anticommunism, however, are not significant.

These emotional, anticommunist, and hard-line views of defense are incorporated into the traditional conceptualization and measurement of patriotism (column 5 of Table 4). The traditional patriotism scale correlates strongly and positively with anticommunism, Iran Contra, and defense spending attitudes. These results could lend support to the rather simple conclusion that true patriots are anticommunist and tough on defense while nonpatriotic citizens are not. In contrast, our methodological approach supports a very different conclusion—that certain understandings of what it means to be patriotic are anticommunist and tough on defense, while other views are not. How people choose to understand “love of country” can vary considerably, and this variation (and how we as scholars label it) has profound political implications.

Iconoclastic and symbolic patriotism are in some respects opposites, and traditional measures of patriotism—emotional patriotism, anticommunism, and posture toward defense—accurately reflect the oppositional nature of these views. Instinctive environmental and capitalistic patriotism, however, exhibit little consensus about the emotional aspects of patriotism, anticommunism, or defense. Traditional measures and approaches do not reflect the unique character of these views about the reactions to issues that involve the concept of patriotism. According to the *Q*-methodology study, environmental and ecological issues are central to the instinctive environmental conception of patriotism, and although these views may be grounded in the traditional symbols of patriotism, the context provides a unique interpretation of these symbols.

To examine the central role of environmental and economic issues, survey respondents were asked to choose between economic development and environmental protection. Answers to this question were quite diverse among people whose profile best matched the symbolic or iconoclastic perspectives on patriotism. Instinctive environmental patriotism, however, was strongly related to choices on this trade-off. People close to the instinctive environmental perspective indicated strong support for environmental protection.³⁶ The traditional pa-

³⁶ Those close to capitalistic patriotism leaned toward economic development. The correlation between capitalistic patriotism and the environment versus jobs trade-off question is not presented in Table 4 because one of the defining items for this perspective includes such a trade-off in it. The correlation is, however, .37.

triotism scale is not correlated with this item, reflecting the findings of iconoclastic and symbolic patriotism, but not those of instinctive environmental patriotism.

Finally, on the "role of government" question, iconoclastic and instinctive environmental patriotism are strongly related to positive views of government activities, while capitalistic patriotism is not. Symbolic patriotism is correlated with the jobs-environment trade-off. In this case, the traditional measure of patriotism mirrors the findings for capitalistic patriotism but not the others.

Patriotism perspectives and the 1988 election. Data in Table 3 suggest that the effect of patriotism on the 1984 and 1988 presidential elections was contingent upon citizens' patriotism perspectives. The last two items in Table 4 show that the traditional measure of patriotism did not correlate with respondents' reported vote for Reagan or Mondale in 1984 (.12), or their intended vote for Dukakis or Bush in 1988 (.07).³⁷ Adherence to different perspectives on patriotism, however, did correlate significantly with 1984 vote and with 1988 vote intention. The more closely one adopted the perspective of either iconoclastic or instinctive environmental patriotism, the more likely one was to have voted for Mondale and to intend to vote for Dukakis. Economic patriotism, on the other hand, inclined one to support Bush early in the campaign.

The data in these tables show that patriotism perspectives are correlated with voting behavior. It is crucial to the validity of the argument presented here, not only to demonstrate that patriotism and the pledge issue played a role in the 1988 election but also to identify more precisely the exact nature of that role. We have argued that studying patriotism with this research strategy provides significant predictive and analytical power. In an effort to illustrate this claim, Table 5 presents the results of a more precise test.

First, the argument we made earlier was that Bush's particular appeal on the patriotism issue would disproportionately influence people who adhere to the symbolic and instinctive environmental rather than the iconoclastic or capitalistic conceptions of patriotism. The latter two groups—whose understandings of patriotism are not as susceptible to symbolic and ritualistic appeals—should have been relatively unaffected by Bush's use of the pledge, the flag, and the patriotism slogan in the election. The first equation in Table 5 relates the "usual suspects"—party identification, candidate images, political ideology, and issue positions—to voting behavior in 1988. It also includes measures of perceptions of Bush's and Dukakis's patriotism, along with perceptions of how far away respondents believed each candidate to be from their own position on the "pledge

³⁷ Shanks and Miller (1991), however, analyzed the NES survey data from the 1988 election and found a bivariate standardized regression coefficient of .24 between reported vote and a "patriotism" scale comprised of items 3, 5, 6, and 8 from Appendix A. As in Table 5, however, they found that this traditional patriotism scale had no effect on vote choice with party identification (and/or other variables) held constant.

Table 5. Patriotism Perspectives, Traditional Patriotism, and the 1988 Vote

	Measures of Patriotism Perspectives		Traditional Measure of Patriotism	
	Betas	Unstandardized Regression Coefficients	Betas	Unstandardized Regression Coefficients
Party identification	.35*	.17	.37*	.18
Bush's candidate image	.35*	.21	.30*	.19
Dukakis's candidate image	-.18*	-.12	-.22*	-.15
Role of government	.16*	.04	.16*	.04
Defense issues	.02	.00	.04	.01
Respondent's ideology	-.04	-.02	.01	.00
NES patriotism items			-.02	.00
Perceptions of Bush's patriotism	-.13	-.20		
Perceptions of Dukakis's patriotism	-.07	-.14		
Distance from Bush on the pledge issue	.09	.06		
Distance from Dukakis on the pledge issue	.07	.05		
<i>Interactions between patriotism perspective and:</i>				
Perceptions of Bush's patriotism	.02	.02		
Perceptions of Dukakis's patriotism	.09	.11		
Distance from Bush on the pledge issue	-.06	-.04		
Distance from Dukakis on the pledge issue	-.21*	-.15		
Adjusted R-squared =		.64		.62

Note: The vote variable is coded 1 = Bush, 2 = other, and 3 = Dukakis. Party identification is the standard 7-point scale. Candidate images were measured by 4-point ratings of effectiveness, fairness, and likability. The role of government scale is described in Table 4. Perceptions of patriotism were 4-point ratings on the candidates' patriotism or lack of patriotism, and the pledge issue is described in the text. For the interaction terms, patriotism perspectives are divided into symbolic versus nonsymbolic types.

*Significant at the .05 level.

in the classroom" issue.³⁸ Finally, and most important, this equation includes four interaction terms. To create the interaction terms, respondents were divided into symbolically oriented (types 2 and 3) and nonsymbolically oriented (types 1 and 4) patriots. The former were assigned scores of one, the latter of zero, and this dummy variable was used in interaction terms with measures of perceptions of the two candidates' patriotism and their positions on the pledge issue.³⁹

The regression results from the first equation show that none of the measures of the patriotism and pledge issues has a significant main effect on voting.⁴⁰

³⁸The pledge issue was measured by asking respondents to choose between two statements: teachers should be required to lead the pledge because it teaches children to be loyal citizens, or teachers should not be required to lead the pledge because it violates their and their students' freedom of religion and speech. After choosing one side (or being unable to choose), respondents were asked whether they agreed strongly or not so strongly with this view. The result was a five-point scale. They were then asked the same questions about Bush's and Dukakis's position on the pledge issue. The measures used in the equation in Table 4 reflect the distance between respondents' own positions and their perceived positions for Bush and Dukakis, respectively.

³⁹It has been pointed out that if the scoring were reversed—nonsymbolic patriots were scored one and symbolic patriots zero—then the standardized coefficients for the interaction terms in Table 4 would change. Such an operationalization would be inconsistent with our theoretical argument that the symbolic patriots should be affected by these issues whereas the nonsymbolic patriots should *not* be affected. It would be a theoretical misspecification to include the interaction terms with the patriotism and pledge issues for people hypothesized to be unaffected by these issues and to exclude it for those expected to be affected. Nevertheless, we ran the equation with this reversed scoring, and of course the signs for the interaction terms were reversed. For the patriotism perspective–Dukakis pledge issue interaction, the size of the unstandardized coefficient is unchanged at .15, and the standardized coefficient becomes .13.

⁴⁰The main effects for patriotism type were not included in the equation for several reasons. The first is that the theoretical argument is only consistent with an interaction between patriotism perspective and the pledge and patriotism issues. If our argument is correct, Bush's campaign should have affected only two of the four types of patriots. Kmenta (1971, 420–21) discusses the use of both qualitative and quantitative explanatory variables when the former operates by affecting the slope coefficients for the quantitative variable. He does so by incorporating an interaction term but no main effect for the qualitative variable. Only when both the intercept and slope are expected to be affected by the qualitative variable does one include both the main effects for the qualitative variable and the interactive term. Another reason for not including the main effects for patriotism perspective is that including such main effects results in very high multicollinearity. For example, when both main effects (for all four types, three dummy variables) and interaction terms are included in the equation, two of the beta coefficients for patriotism type are in the .40s but are not statistically significant. The interaction terms are also affected by increased standard errors. To examine the issue further, however, we included as main effects the deviation scores for each of the four types that were presented in Table 4. When this is done, the basic results of Table 5 are again confirmed. The beta for the patriotism perspective–Dukakis pledge interaction term drops from $-.21$ to $-.19$, not much change. None of the betas for the main effects of patriotism perspectives (deviation scores) is statistically significant, although that for capitalistic patriots is close. They were less likely to vote for Bush than predicted, based on their other characteristics. As a final exercise, we ran the equation including the deviation score measures for main effects and deleted the interaction terms. When this is done, only the main effect for capitalistic patriots is statistically significant ($-.14$), again indicat-

They do, however, show the predicted interaction between patriotism perspective and the impact of perceptions of Dukakis's position on the pledge issue. This suggests that Bush was able to cast doubt on Dukakis's fitness, for symbolically oriented patriotism types, by raising the pledge issue and by defining it more broadly as an indication of patriotism. The effect is relatively strong—behind only party identification and Bush's image—as a predictor of vote choice among our respondents.⁴¹ This shows that, among symbolic and instinctive environmental patriots, the greater the distance between respondents' own positions on the pledge issue and their perceptions of Dukakis's position, the less likely they were to vote for him.⁴² For the other two types of patriots, this issue had little or no effect.⁴³

The results from a second test of the argument are presented in the third and fourth columns of Table 5. There we have presented the voting equation with the more traditional measure of patriotism (from Appendix A) as one of the independent variables. It is clear that if one were to rely only on this measure, one would conclude that voters were not influenced by the patriotism issue in 1988. The traditional *R*-methodology patriotism scale shows absolutely no effect on voting

ing that, all else equal, capitalistic patriots undervoted for Bush. The results in Table 5 specify more clearly why that was the case—because they and the iconoclasts were unaffected by the pledge and patriotism issues, whereas the symbolic and instinctive environmental patriots were affected.

⁴¹This equation was run again, this time controlling for vote intention as expressed in the May survey. The results are virtually identical to those included in Table 4. Exactly the same five predictors are statistically significant, and the standardized coefficient for the patriotism perspective–Dukakis pledge issue interaction is $-.19$, while the unstandardized coefficient is $-.13$. This equation ensures that the campaign effects we claim to be picking up in the interaction terms explain not only final vote choice but also changes in vote intention during the course of the campaign. The pledge issue affected changes—between voting intentions stated in May and actual vote in November—among symbolically oriented but not among nonsymbolically oriented patriots.

⁴²Two respondents voted for a candidate other than Bush or Dukakis, so they were included in the regression equations reported in Table 5. To examine whether the almost-dichotomy used as a dependent variable in these equations produces distorted results, we ran a probit equation, identical to the first model in Table 5, using vote as a dichotomy. The results were identical. The same five independent variables were statistically significant, including the interaction between patriotism perspective and distance from Dukakis on the pledge issue ($p = .03$).

⁴³We also ran a similar regression equation that contrasted iconoclastic and instinctive environmental patriots with symbolic and capitalistic patriots. In this equation, none of the interactions was significant. Taken in conjunction with the results in Table 5, this suggests that the patriotism issue was shaped by Bush's symbolic and emotional formulation, not by an underlying relationship with the liberal-conservative dimension. If it were because of the latter, the interactions in this equation would have been more powerful than those reported in Table 5 because the iconoclastic and instinctive environmental patriots were more liberal than the symbolic and capitalistic patriots. The fact that the equations reported in Table 5 included measures of respondents' political ideology as well as their position on issues also helps to rule out the alternative explanation that our measures of patriotism are nothing more than surrogates for political ideology.

once the “usual suspects” are controlled.⁴⁴ Yet the results obtained by a combination of *Q*- and *R*-methodology suggest that patriotism played a very significant—if nuanced—role in the general election.

Concluding Comments

As we pointed out at the beginning of this paper, in recent years politicians have often campaigned on issues related to patriotism; yet few scholars have analyzed the concept of patriotism, and fewer yet have assessed its role in national elections. In an attempt to evaluate and build upon the relatively meager scholarship on patriotism, we discovered that the two dominant approaches to the study of patriotism are, in important respects, incongruent. The empiricists who have studied patriotism have assumed that a single, common understanding exists and have developed questionnaire items intended to measure this particular understanding of patriotism—as a symbolic and emotional attachment to flag and country. Those working in the historical or conceptual tradition, on the other hand, have suggested that patriotism is and has been a contested concept. At different moments in history, patriotism has meant different things and, in the contemporary era, probably means different things to different types of people.

Our attempt to deal with this incommensurability led us to develop a three-fold research strategy that included a historical and conceptual analysis, followed by an intensive *Q*-methodology analysis of differing “points of view” about the meaning of patriotism, and culminating in an extensive opinion survey to identify and evaluate the distribution of these different conceptions of patriotism within the broader community. The latter step allowed us to provide a systematic assessment of the role the meanings of patriotism played in affecting voting behavior in the 1988 election. The results of our analysis suggest rather clearly that different people do in fact conceptualize patriotism differently. Furthermore, people responded to Bush’s appeal on the pledge of allegiance and his particular approach to patriotism based at least in part upon the congruence between his appeal and their own conceptualization of patriotism.

The approach developed here combines statistical, analytic rigor, and the ability to generalize with a more open and fully developed approach to the problem of concept definition and analysis. This approach may prove useful in the analysis of other concepts. People’s (subjective) conceptual views of citizenship, for example, are strongly related to their political participation even when other known determinants of participation are statistically controlled (Theiss-Morse 1989), and doubtless the same is also true of other important political concepts.

⁴⁴For the sake of completeness, we ran the second equation in Table 5 again, including interaction terms between (1) the traditional patriotism items and perceptions of the candidates’ patriotism and (2) the traditional items and the pledge issue. Neither of these interaction terms was statistically significant.

Rather than undermine survey approaches to the understanding and analysis of political behavior, then, this multimethod approach promises to enrich and reinvigorate survey methodology.

Finally, our study reveals much about patriotism as a term of contemporary political discourse, both in the language of ordinary citizens and in the rhetoric of "high politics." As the 1988 election indicates, politicians have not been unaware of the significance of patriotism as a political concept, nor reluctant to mobilize it for partisan political purposes. On the level of electoral politics at least, patriotism has been reduced to little more than a slogan—or a symbolic cloak—in which political leaders seek to wrap themselves. Indeed, the rhetoric of 1988 betrayed all the signs of what Alexis de Tocqueville once called the "irritable patriotism" of Americans—a refusal to brook any sort of criticism of country and a tendency to indulge in unreflective paeans to national symbols for the sake of symbolism alone.⁴⁵ In short, we seem to have traveled a far distance not only from the moment in our historical past when patriotism was forged in revolutionary rhetoric but also from a time in which patriotism was linked to a systematically articulated political ideology of "free world" capitalism and anticomunism. If the previous election is any indication of the state of contemporary "patriot rhetoric," it appears as though the concept has been transmuted into blandishments: "We're on the optimistic side. We're on the American side. We know we can do the job."⁴⁶

Fortunately, however, the politicians' tendency to rob complex political concepts of their richness in order to achieve the perfect "sound bite" does not yet seem to have found its parallel on the level of everyday political discourse. Our research suggests that in the political realm, the term patriotism captures a range of attitudes and beliefs. For some citizens it is an instinctive passion for America; for others, patriotism involves allegiance to existing institutions and to U.S. democracy as a political ideal; for still others, patriotism means an engaged activism and the exercise of rights—especially, perhaps, the right of free expression, often against the state. Given this diverse array of understandings, we might tentatively conclude that—contrary to the claims of post-Vietnam pundits—the vocabulary of patriotism, although precarious, has not become the exclusive domain of chauvinistic, nationalist sensibilities, or thoroughly emptied of political content. Whatever else it is, patriotism appears still to be a protean concept, one that continues to shape the fabric of our political practices and to inform our debates about the nature of loyalty to country, the meaning of citizen-

⁴⁵Consider, for example, George Bush's statement, "I would have signed [a law to require public school teachers to lead the Pledge of Allegiance] because I think that symbolism of our country, one nation under God, is good and I don't think it hurts the children at all to say that pledge in school" (*New York Times*, 24 August 1988).

⁴⁶George Bush in Orange, California, 14 September 1988 (*New York Times*, 15 September 1988).

ship, and the appropriate character of our political membership in the modern nation-state.

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APPENDIX A National Election Survey "Patriotism Scale," 1987

- 1.^a How strong is the respect you have for the United States these days . . . *extremely strong, very strong, somewhat strong, or not very strong?*
- 2.^a How angry does it make you feel when you hear someone criticizing the United States . . . *extremely angry, very angry, somewhat angry, or not very angry?*
- 3.^a How proud are you to be an American? Are you *extremely proud, very proud, somewhat proud, or not very proud?*
4. How angry does it make you feel when people burn the American flag in protest . . . *extremely angry, very angry, somewhat angry, or not very angry?*
5. How good does it make you feel when you see the American flag flying . . . *extremely good, very good, somewhat good, or not very good?*
6. How strong is your love for your country . . . *extremely strong, very strong, somewhat strong, or not very strong?*
- 7.^a How mad do people who sell government secrets make you feel . . . *extremely mad, very mad, somewhat mad, or not very mad?*
8. How proud do you feel when you hear the national anthem . . . *extremely proud, very proud, somewhat proud, or not very proud?*

^aThese items were used on our survey to measure this "traditional, emotional patriotism" dimension and to compare it with the perspectives we discover in our *Q*-methodology study. Coefficient alpha for emotional patriotism was .73.

APPENDIX B Analytical Categories of Patriotism

1. *Instinctive patriotism*, as a purely affective love of homeplace, national or local. Example: the way I feel about my country has little or nothing to do with complicated ideas. It's very close, deeply emotional, and nearly instinctive—like how a parent feels about an infant or how that child feels about that parent.
2. *Environmental patriotism*, as a commitment to the land, the city, and the preservation of the earth for future generations. Example: Those who exploit our natural resources for profit do not act in the true spirit of this country. They are destroying our most precious heritage, and it is not too extreme to call them traitors.
3. *American exceptionalism*, as belief that one's country has some sort of special character, perhaps rooted in the qualities of the founders or in the special strength of its citizens or its military or economic system. Example: To understand the glory of America, just remember that we were the first nation on earth to land a man on the moon. Whenever we do something first or best, I feel a surge of pride that reminds me that the U.S.A. is number one.
4. *Institutional patriotism*, loyalty to the regime and its state apparatus. Example: No one can convince me that Ollie North and the rest of the Contragate crew are true patriots. They may think

that what they did was good for the country, but they just trampled all over the law and the Constitution.

5. *Democratic patriotism*, as reflection of a commitment to principles such as participatory citizenship, democratic institutions, and a skepticism of state power. Example: The true patriot is the person who tries to make the government do what is right and live up to its ideals, by contacting government officials, working in political campaigns, or voting.

6. *Liberal, capitalist patriotism*, equating freedom and love of country with free enterprise, commerce, property, and the marketplace. Example: In my mind, the giants of American industry, such as John D. Rockefeller, Henry Ford, and Andrew Carnegie were patriots as great as Washington, Jefferson, and Lincoln.

7. *Supranationalist patriotism*, transcending the nation-state, involving a commitment to the whole of humankind and a loyalty to world order and peace, coupled with the expectation that a good citizen will push national governments in this direction. Example: Our political leaders have not worked hard enough to achieve peace and human rights in the world. All Americans must put pressure on them to work harder toward peace and human rights, and people who do nothing about it are not good citizens.

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